Designing a URL Shortening Service like TinyURL

Let's design a URL shortening service like TinyURL. This service will provide short aliases redirecting to long URLs.

Difficulty: Hard

Prerequisites: Hashing, why is it useful?, Difficulty Level: Easy

1. Why do we need URL shortening?

URL shortening is used to create shorter aliases for long URLs. We call these shortened aliases "short links." Users are redirected to the original URL when they hit a short link. Short links save lots of space when displayed, printed, messaged, or written. Additionally, users are less likely to mistype shorter URLs.

For example, if we shorten the following URL through TinyURL:

```
https://www.designgurus.org/course/grokking-the-system-design-interview
```

We would get:

```
https://tinyurl.com/zxa9fqw
```

The shortened URL is nearly one-third the size of the actual URL.

We also have the option to customize a short URL. For example, we can include our company's name in the URL. This option is helpful if we want to share a product's URL publicly. Customized URLs are also more likely to be remembered by users.

2. Requirements and Goals of the System

You should always clarify requirements at the beginning of the interview. Be sure to ask questions to find the exact scope of the system that the interviewer has in mind.

Our URL shortening system should meet the following requirements:

Functional Requirements:

1. Given a URL, our service should generate a shorter and unique alias of it. This is called a short link.
2. When users access a short link, our service should redirect them to the original link.
3. Users should optionally be able to pick a custom short link for their URL.
4. Links will expire after a standard default timespan. Users should be able to specify the expiration time.

Non-Functional Requirements:

1. The system should be highly available. This is required because, if our service is down, all the URL redirections will start failing.
2. URL redirection should happen in real-time with minimal latency.
3. Shortened links should not be guessable (not predictable).

Extended Requirements:

1. Analytics, e.g., how many times a redirection happened?
2. Our service should be accessible through REST APIs by other services.

3. Capacity Estimation and Constraints

Our system will be read-heavy. There will be lots of redirection requests compared to new URL shortenings. Let's assume a 100:1 ratio between read and write.

Traffic estimates: Assuming, we will have 500 million new URL shortenings per month, with 100:1 read/write ratio, we can expect 50 billion redirections during the same period:

$$100 * 500M = 50B$$

What would be QPS (queries for second) for 50 billion requests?

$$50B / (30 days * 24 hours * 3600 seconds) = ~19K/s$$

Considering 1M:1 read/write ratio, URL redirections per second will be:

$$100 * 19K/s[1] = ~2M/s$$

Storage estimates: Let's assume we store every shortening request (and associated shortened link) for 5 years. Since we expect to have 500 million new URLs every month, the total number of objects we need to store will be:

$$500M * 5 years * 12 months = 30B$$

Let's assume that each stored object will be approximately 500 bytes (just a ballpark estimate; we will dig into it later). We will need 15TB of total storage:

$$30B * 500 bytes = 15TB$$

Bandwidth estimates: For write requests, since we expect 500 new URLs every second, total incoming data for our service will be 100KB per second:

$$500 * 200 bytes = 100KB/s$$

For read requests, since every second we expect ~19K/s[1] redirections, total outgoing data for our service would be 10MB per second:

$$19K/s * 500 bytes = ~10MB/s$$

Memory estimates: If we want to cache some of the hot URLs that are frequently accessed, how much memory will we need for that? If we follow the 80-20 rule, meaning 20% of URLs generate 80% of traffic, we would like to cache these 20% hot URLs.

Since we have 20K requests per second, we will be caching 1.7 billion requests per day:

$$20K * 3600 seconds * 24 hours = ~1.7B$$

To cache 20% of these requests, we will need 170GB of memory.

$$0.2 * 1.7B/day * 500 bytes = ~170GB$$

Over time, we would have to scale these storage numbers for 5 years.

High-level estimates: Assuming 500 million new URLs per month and 100:1 read/write ratio, following are the high-level estimates for our service. Assume 1MB = 1,000KB; and 1GB = 1,000MB.

New URLs	200/s
URL redirections	20K/s
Incoming data	100KB/s
Outgoing data	~10MB/s
Storage for 5 years	15TB
Memory for cache	~170GB

Once we've finalized the requirements, it's always a good idea to define the system APIs. This should explicitly state what is expected from the system.

Let's assume we have REST-based APIs to expose the functionality of our service. Following could be the definitions of the APIs for creating and deleting URLs:

```
createURL(api_dev_key, original_url, custom_alias=None, user_name=None, expire_date=None)
```

Parameters:

api_dev_key (string): The API developer key of a registered account. This will be used to, among other things, throttle users based on their allocated quota.

original_url (string): URL to be shortened.

custom_alias (string): Optional custom key for the URL.

user_name (string): Optional user name to be used in the encoding.

expire_date (string): Optional expiration date for the shortened URL.

Returns: (string)

A successful insertion returns the shortened URL; otherwise, it returns an error code.

```
deleteURL(api_dev_key, url_to_be_deleted)
```

Where "url_key" is a string representing the shortened URL key to be retrieved; a successful deletion returns 'URL Deleted'.

How do we detect and prevent abuse? A malicious user can put in a lot of requests for creating lots of URL keys in the system designed. To prevent abuse, we can limit users via their api_dev_key. Each api_dev_key can be limited to a certain number of URL creations and redirections per some time period (which may be set to a different duration per developer key).

5. Database Design

Defining the DB schema in the early stages of the interview would help us understand the data flow between various components and later will help us during detailed data partitioning.

A few observations about the nature of the data we will store:

1. We need to store billions of records.
2. Each object we store is small (less than 1K).
3. There are no relationships between records—other than storing which user created a URL.
4. Our service is read-heavy.

Database Schema:

We would need two tables: one for storing information about the URL mappings and one for the user's data who created the short link.



Database Schema

What kind of database should we use? Since we anticipate storing billions of rows, and we don't need to use relationships between objects—a NoSQL store like DynamoDB, Cassandra or HBase would be a better choice. A NoSQL choice would also be easier to scale. Please see "SQL vs NoSQL" for more details.

6. Basic System Design and Algorithm

The problem we are solving here is how to generate a short and unique key for a given URL.

In the TinyURL example in Section 2, the shortened URL is "https://tinyurl.com/zxa9fqw". The last seven characters of this URL constitute the short key we want to generate. We'll explore two solutions here.

a. Encoding actual URL

We can compute a unique hash (e.g., MD5 or SHA256, etc.) of the given URL. The hash can then be encoded for display. This encoding could be either base36 ([a-z 0-9]) or base62 ([A-Z, a-z, 0-9]) and if we add '-' and '.' we can use more characters in our encoding. The MD5 hash is 128 bits. How many characters would we have in the result after we apply base64 encoding? If we take a length of the short key of 6, 8, or 10 characters?

Using base64 encoding, a 6 letter long key would result in $64^6 = ~68.7$ billion possible strings. Using base64 encoding, an 8 letters long key would result in $64^8 = ~281$ trillion possible strings.

With 68.7B unique strings, let's assume six letter keys would suffice for our system.

If we use the MD5 algorithm as our hash function, it will produce a 128-bit hash value. After base64 encoding, we'll get a string that would be more than 21 characters long (since each base64 character encodes 6 bits of the hash value). Now we only have space for 6 (or 8 characters per short key). how will we choose our key then? We can take the first 6 (or 8) letters for the key. This could result in key duplication, to resolve that, we can choose some other characters out of the encoding string or swap some characters.

What are the different issues with our solution? We have the following couple of problems with our encoding scheme:

1. If multiple users enter the same URL, they can get the same shortened URL, which is not acceptable.
2. What if parts of the URL are URL encoded? e.g., http://www.designgurus.org/dir/famed.php?id=design+gurus and http://www.designgurus.org/dir/famed.php?id=design%20gurus are two different URLs.

Workaround for the issues: We can append an increasing sequence number to each input URL to make it unique, and then generate its hash. We don't need to store this sequence number in the database, though. Possible problems with appending a number are the hash becoming slow (number Can't overflow) depending on increasing sequence numbers can affect the randomness and performance of the service.

Another solution could be to append the user id which should be unique to the input URL. However, if the user has not signed in, we would have to ask the user to choose a uniqueness key. Even after this, if a user has submitted the same URL, we should return the same URL.



b. Generating keys offline

We can have a standalone **Key Generation Service (KGS)** that generates random six-letter strings beforehand and stores them in a database (let's call it key-DB). Whenever we want to shorten a URL, we will take one of the already-generated keys and use it. This approach will make things quite simple and fast. Not only are we not encoding the URL, but we won't have to worry about duplications or collisions. KGS will make sure all the keys inserted into key DB are unique.

Can concurrency cause problems in this solution? As soon as a key is given to one server, it can mark that key as used in the database. Until this gets written to the database, we can keep it in memory that is reserved for that server. We can keep some extra keys with each server to quickly load in memory. Server can load another batch when it reaches a threshold limit or when the concurrency permits!

What would be the key-DB size? With base64 encoding, we can generate 68.7B unique six letters keys. If we need one byte to store one alpha-numeric character, we can store all these keys in:

$$6 bytes * 68.7B = ~412GB$$

Isn't KGS a single point of failure? Yes, it is. To solve this, we can have a standby replica of KGS. Whenever the primary server dies, the standby server can take over to generate and provide keys.

Can each app server cache some keys from key-DB? Yes, this can certainly speed things up. In this case, if the application server dies before consuming all the keys, we will end up losing those keys. This can be acceptable since we have 68.7B unique six letter keys to work with.

How would we perform a key lookup? We can look up the key in our database to get the full URL. If it's present in the DB, issue a "HTTP 302 Redirect" status back to the browser, passing the stored URL in the "Location" field of the request. If the URL is not present in our system, issue an "HTTP 404 Not Found" status or redirect back to the home page.

Should we impose size limits on custom aliases? Our service supports custom aliases. Users can pick any "key" they like, but providing a custom alias is not mandatory. However, it is reasonable (and often desirable) to impose a size limit on a custom alias to have a consistent URL database. Let's assume users can specify a maximum of 16 characters per custom key (as reflected in the above database schema).



7. Data Partitioning and Replication

To scale out our DB, we need to partition it so that it can store information about billions of URLs. We need to describe how we plan to partition our data and how we plan to do it in a way that it does not affect DB reads.

Partitioning based on the hash (of the original URL): We can divide our data and store it on different DB servers.

Partitioning based on the key: We can store URLs in separate partitions based on the hash key's first letter. Hence we will store all the URL hash keys starting with the letter 'A' (and 'a') in one partition, those that start with the letter 'B' in another partition and so on. This approach is called range based partitioning. We can even combine certain less frequently occurring letters into one database partition. We should publish this partitioning scheme so that our application servers know URLs can be looked up in predictable manners.

Both the above partitioning schemes will be prone to load or unbalanced DB servers. For example, we decide to put all URLs starting with the letter 'E' into a DB partition, but later we realize that we have too many words in English that start with the letter 'E'.

A Hash-Based Partitioning: In this scheme, we take a hash of the object we are storing. We then calculate which partition to use based on the hash. In our case, we can take the hash of the 'key' or the short link to determine the partition in which the information about the URL will be stored.

Our hashing function will randomly distribute URLs into different partitions (e.g., our hashing function can always map any 'key' to a number between [1...256]). This number would represent the DB partition in which we will store our object.

This approach can still lead to overloaded partitions, which can be solved using Consistent Hashing.

8. Cache

We can cache URLs that are frequently accessed. We can use any off-the-shelf solution like Memcached, which can store full URLs with their respective hashes. The application servers, before hitting the backend storage, can quickly check if the cache has the desired URL.

How much cache memory should we have? We can start with 20% of daily traffic and based on clients' usage patterns, we can adjust how many cache servers we need. As mentioned above, to cache 20% of daily traffic, we will need 170GB of memory. A high-end commercial machine can have up to 2TB of memory; hence we can easily fit all the cache into one machine. Alternatively, we can use a couple of smaller machines for this purpose.

Which cache eviction policy would best fit our needs? When the cache is full, and we want to replace a link with a newer/hotter URL, how do we choose? Any caching eviction policy (LRU) can be a reasonable policy for our system. Under this policy, we discard the least recently used URL first. We can use a Linked Hash Table or a similar data structure to store our URLs and hashes, which will also keep track of the URLs that have been accessed recently.

To further increase the efficiency, we can replicate our caching servers to distribute the load between them.

How can each cache replica be updated? Whenever there is a cache miss, our servers would be hitting a backend database. Whenever this happens, we can update the entry in the cache and pass the new entry to all the cache replicas. Each replica can update its cache by adding the new entry. If a replica already has that entry, it can simply ignore it.



Cache miss: Application server is accessing a cache miss and pushing the entry to all the cache replicas.

9. Load Balancer (LB)

We can add a load balancing layer at three places in our system:

1. Between clients and application servers
2. Between application servers and database servers
3. Between application servers and cache servers

Initially, we could use a simple Round-Robin approach that distributes incoming requests equally among backend servers. This LB is simple to implement and does not introduce any overhead. Another benefit of this approach is that if a server is dead, LB will take it out of the rotation and will stop sending any traffic to it.

A problem with Round-Robin LB is that we do not consider the server load. As a result, if a server is overloaded or slow, the LB will not stop sending new requests to that server. To handle this, a more intelligent LB solution can be placed periodically queries the backend server about its load and adjust traffic based to that.

Detailed component design for URL shortening

10. Purging or DB cleanup

Should entries stick around forever, or should they be purged? If a user-specified expiration time is reached, what should happen to the link?

If we chose to continuously search for expired links to remove them, it would put a lot of pressure on our database. Instead, we can slowly remove expired links and do a lazy cleanup. Our service will ensure that only expired links will be deleted, although some expired links can live longer but will always be removed when requested.

- Whenever a user tries to access an expired link, we can delete the link and return an error to the user.
- A separate Cleanup service can periodically remove expired links from our storage and cache. This service should be very lightweight and scheduled to run only when the user traffic is expected to be low.
- We can have a default expiration time for each link (e.g., two years).
- After removing an expired link, we can add the key back to the key-DB to be reused.
- Should we remove links that haven't been visited in some length of time, say six months? This could be tricky. Since storage is getting cheap, we can decide to keep links forever.

Detailed component design for URL shortening

11. Telemetry

How many times a short URL has been used, what were user locations, etc.? How much second visits are coming from one IP address? We can add some counters in our DB or use something like Redis or Hyperloglog to maintain such information.

12. Security and Permissions

Can users create private URLs or allow a particular set of users to access a URL?

We can store the permission level (public/private) with each URL in the database. We can also create a separate table to store UserIDs that have permission to see a specific URL. If a user does not have permission and tries to access a URL, we can send an HTTP error back. Besides these, we can also encrypt our data in a NoSQL-like database like Cassandra, the key for the table storing the encryption keys can be stored in an RDBMS system (MySQL). The columns will store the UserIDs of those users that have permission to see the URL.